

unit - IV

Semantic Analysis:

→ The plain - parse - tree constructed in that part of the syntax analyzer phase and it is no use for a compiler, as it does not carry any information of how to evaluate the tree.

Ex: $E \rightarrow E + T$

The above CFG production has no semantic rule associated with it, and it cannot help in making any sense of the production.

Semantics: semantics of a language provide to its constructs, like tokens and syntax structure.

Syntax Directed Defⁿ = CFG + Semantic Rules

Attribute Grammar: Attribute Grammar is a special form of context-free grammar where some additional information (attributes) are appended to one (or) more of its non-terminals in order to provide context-sensitive information.

Each attribute has well-defined domain of values, such as integer, float, character, string & expression.

Attribute grammar can pass values or information among the nodes of a tree.

Ex: $E \rightarrow E + T$ $\{E.value = E.value + T.value\}$

The right part of the CFG contains the semantic rules that specify how the grammar should be interpreted. Here the values of non-terminals E and T are added together and the result is copied to the non-terminal E .

Attributes: Attributes are divided into 2 types. They are

- ① synthesized attributes.
- ② Inherited attributes

① Synthesized attributes: These attributes get values from the attribute values of their child nodes.

$$S \rightarrow ABC$$

If S is taking values from its child nodes (A, B, C) then it is said to be a synthesized attribute, as the values of A, B, C are synthesized to S .

Ex: $A \rightarrow BCD$ $A = \text{Parent}$ $BCD = \text{children}$

$$\left. \begin{array}{l} A.\text{val} = B.\text{val} \\ A.\text{val} = C.\text{val} \\ A.\text{val} = D.\text{val} \end{array} \right\} \text{Parent node } A \text{ from its children } B, C, D$$

② Inherited Attribute: In contrast to synthesized attribute, inherited attributes can take values from parent and/or siblings.

Ex:

$$S \rightarrow ABC$$

A can get values from S, B and C

B can get values from S, A and C

C can get values from S, A and B

Syntax Directed Translations (SDT):

→ In Syntax Directed Translation the production rules are specified with semantic actions embedded with production bodies (Actions are specified)

ex: $E \rightarrow E + T \quad \{ \text{Print '+'} \}$

→ The general approach to syntax-directed translation is to construct a parse tree (or) syntax tree and compute the values of attributes of attributes at the nodes of the tree by visiting them in some order.

→ SDT involves passing information bottom-up and/or top-down to the parse tree in form of attributes attached to the nodes.

→ SDT rules use.

1. Lexical values of nodes

2. constants.

3. attributes associated with the non-terminals in their definitions

ex: construct Syntax Directed Translation for the given grammar.

$(2 \times 3 + 4)$

$E \rightarrow E + T$

$E \rightarrow T$

$T \rightarrow T * F$

$T \rightarrow F$

$F \rightarrow \text{num.}$

Solution:

1. context free grammar + semantic actions are said to be syntax Definition Translation

2. Abstract syntax tree for $2 \times 3 + 4$

3. construct Parse tree for the above grammar

4. Annotated Parse Tree.

Step ①: context free Grammar + semantic actions are said to be syntax Definition Translation.

semantic actions are to be written in between curly braces.

context Free Grammar

Semantic Actions

$E \rightarrow E + T$

$\{E.value = E.value + T.value\}$

$E \rightarrow T$

$\{E.value = T.value\}$

$T \rightarrow T * F$

$\{T.value = T.value * F.value\}$

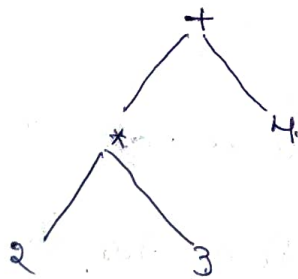
$T \rightarrow F$

$\{T.value = F.value\}$

$F \rightarrow num.$

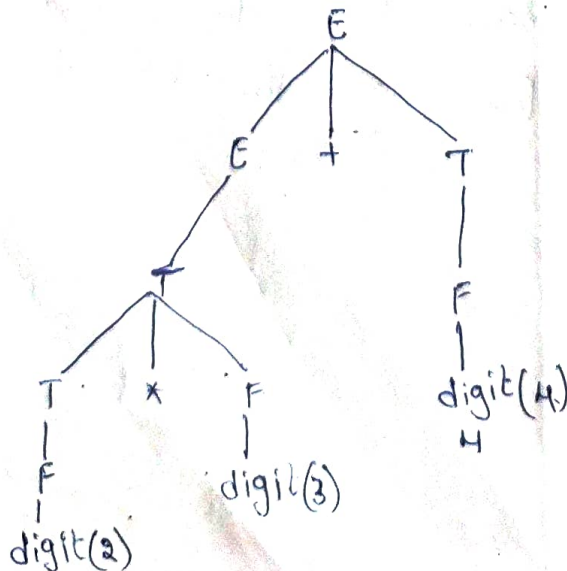
$\{F.value = num.lexical\ value\}$

Step ②: Abstract syntax tree for $2 * 3 + 4$.

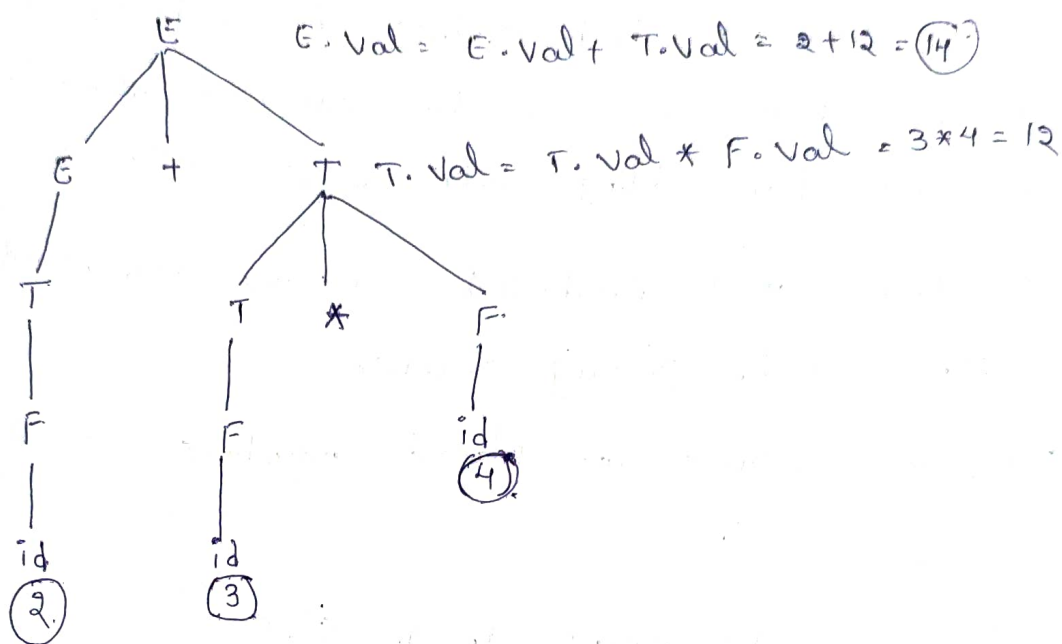


Abstract syntax tree

Step ③: construct parse tree for the above grammar



Step (4): Annotated Parse tree / Decorated Parse tree



Types of SDT: There are 2 types of SDT.

→ S-attributed SDT

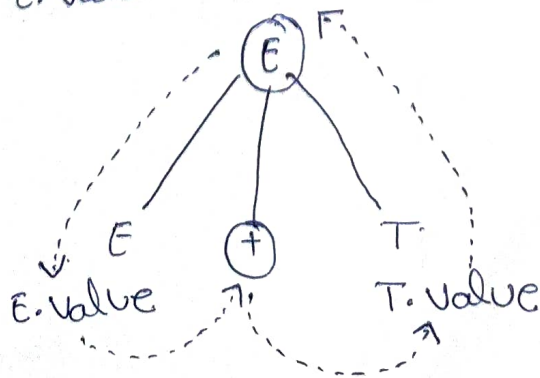
→ L-attributed SDT

S-attributed SDT: If an SDT uses only synthesized attributes, it is called as S-attributed SDT.

→ S-attributed SDTs are evaluated in bottom-up parsing, as the values of the parent nodes depend upon the values of the child nodes.

→ Semantic actions are placed in rightmost place of RHS.

$E.value = E.value + T.value$



L-attributed SDT:

- If an SDT uses both synthesized attributes and inherited attributes with a restriction that inherited attribute can inherit values from left siblings only, it is called as L-attributed SDT.
- Attributes in L-attributed SDTs are evaluated by depth-first and left-to-right passing manner.
- semantic actions are placed anywhere in RHS.

Ex: $S \rightarrow ABC$

B can inherit the values from S & A

A can inherit the values from S

C can inherit the values from S, A, & B

Difference between S-attributed SDT & L-attributed SDT

S-attributed SDT

- Based on synthesized attributes (i.e., get values from the attribute values of their children).

→ use Bottom-up parsing

→ semantic rule always written at rightmost position in RHS.

L-attributed SDT

- Based on synthesized and inherited attributes (i.e., - can take values from parent and/or siblings).

→ use Top-down parsing

→ semantic rules anywhere in RHS.

① consider the grammar that is used for simple desk calculator. obtain the semantic action and also the annotated parse tree for the string $3 \times 5 + 4 \cap$.

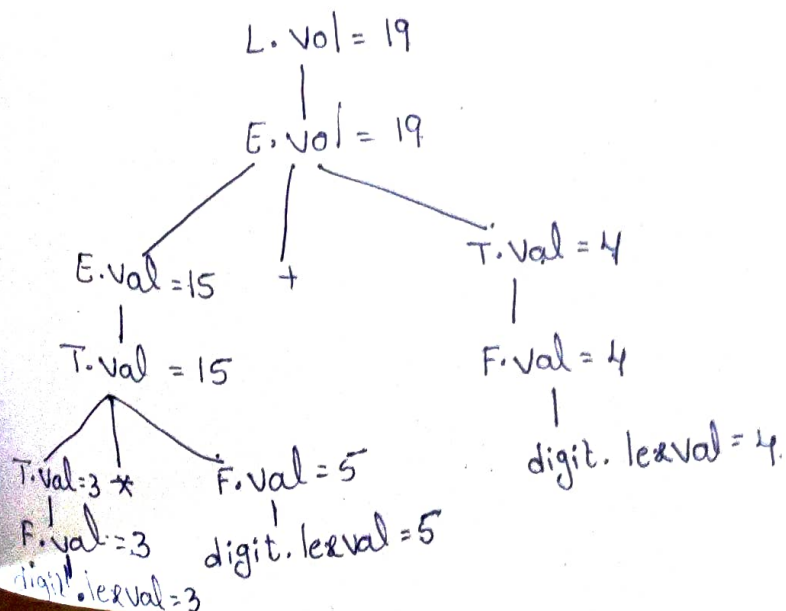
$L \rightarrow E \cap$
 $E \rightarrow E_1 + T$
 $E \rightarrow T$
 $T \rightarrow T_1 * F$
 $T \rightarrow F$
 $F \rightarrow (E)$
 $F \rightarrow \text{digit}$

Sol: Syntax - Directed Definition for a simple desk calculator.

Production	Semantic Rule.
$L \rightarrow E \cap$	$L.val = E.val$
$E \rightarrow E_1 + T$	$E.val = E_1.val + T.val$
$E \rightarrow T$	$E.val = T.val$
$T \rightarrow T_1 * F$	$T.val = T_1.val * F.val$
$T \rightarrow F$	$T.val = F.val$
$F \rightarrow (E)$	$F.val = E.val$
$F \rightarrow \text{digit}$	$F.val = \text{digit}.val$

Syntax - directed definition for A simple desk calculator.

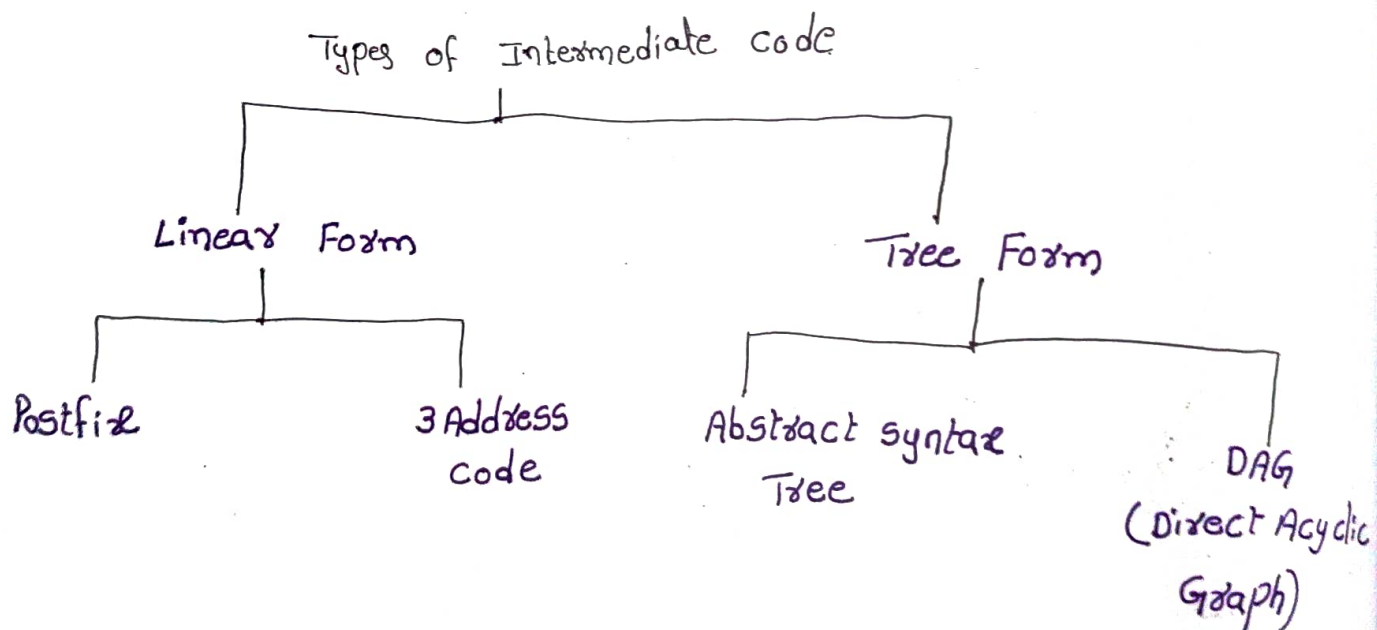
Annotated Parse Tree for $3 \times 5 + 4 \cap$.



Intermediate code Generation

- In the analysis-synthesis model of a compiler,
- i) the front end of a compiler translates a source program into an independent intermediate code.
 - ii) the back end of a compiler uses this intermediate code to generate the target code.

Types of Intermediate code:



① Postfix notation:

→ Also known as reverse polish notation (or) suffix notation

→ In this notation, the operator is placed after operands

ex: ① $a+b \rightarrow$ Infix notation

$ab+ \rightarrow$ Postfix notation

② $(a+b)*c \rightarrow ab+c*$

③ $(a-b)*(c+d)+(a-b) \quad ab-cd+*ab+$

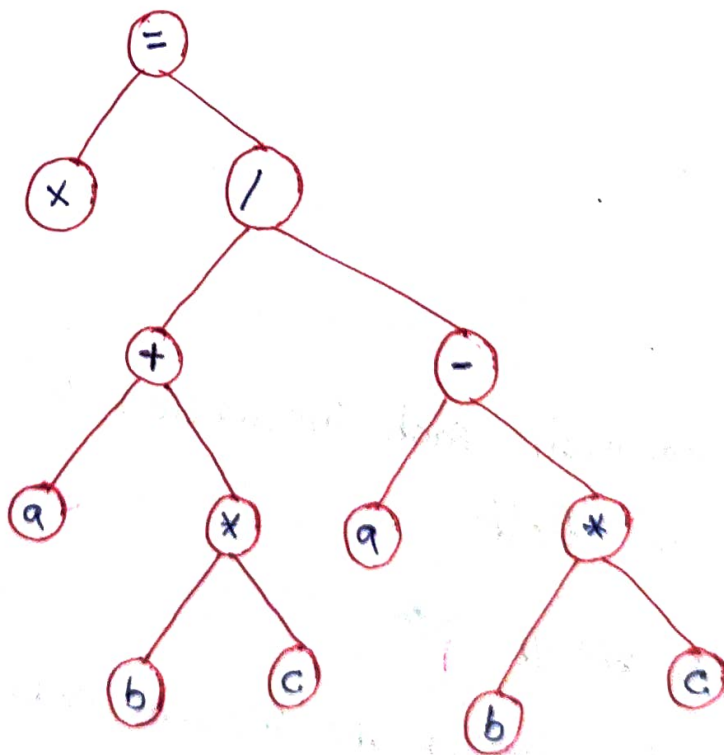
② Abstract syntax Tree:

→ Syntax tree is usually used when to represent a program in a tree structure.

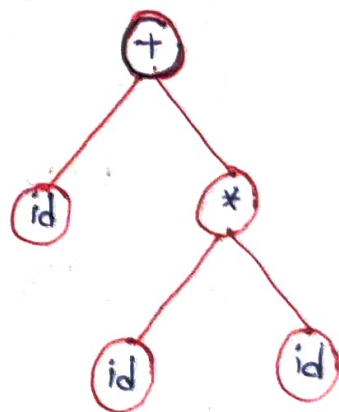
→ Each internal node represents operator

→ Each leaf node represents operand

Ex: ① $x = (a + (b * c)) / (a - (b * c))$



② $id + id * id$



③ Three Address code:

→ If any instruction is said to be three address instruction then the instruction satisfy the following conditions.

(i) Each instruction should contains at most 3 addresses

(ii) Right hand side at most one operator.

Implementation of Three Address code:

① Quadtuple

③ Indirect Triple

② Triple

Ex: $x+y \times z$ (not in three address)

$$\left. \begin{array}{l} t_1 = x+y; \\ t_2 = t_1 \times z; \end{array} \right\} \text{valid three address code representation.}$$

② $a = b \times -c + b \times -c.$

$$t_1 = -c$$

$$t_2 = b \times t_1$$

$$t_3 = -c$$

$$t_4 = b \times t_3$$

$$t_5 = t_2 + t_4$$

① Quadtuple:

→ In quadruples representation, each instruction is splitted into the following 4 different fields.

op, arg1, arg2, result

→ The op field is used for storing the internal code of the operator.

→ The arg1 and arg2 fields are used for storing the two operands used.

→ The result field is used for storing the result of the expression.

	op	arg1	arg2	result
(0)	-	c		t_1
(1)	*	b	t_1	t_2
(2)	-	c		t_3
(3)	*	b	t_3	t_4
(4)	+	t_2	t_4	t_5

$$a = b \times -c + b \times -c$$

$$t_1 = -c$$

$$t_2 = b \times t_1$$

$$t_3 = -c$$

$$t_4 = b \times t_3$$

$$t_5 = t_2 + t_4$$

② Triple: The instruction is splitted into the following 3 different fields

op, arg1, arg2

→ op = operator

→ arg1, arg2 = arguments 1 and argument 2

	op	arg1	arg2
(0)	-	c	
(1)	*	b	(0)
(2)	-	c	
(3)	*	b	(2)
(4)	+	(1)	(3)

③ Indirect Triple Representation:

→ It uses an additional instruction array to list the pointers to the triples in the desired order.

→ Instead of position, pointers are used to store the results.

	State ment
35	(0)
36	(1)
37	(2)
38	(3)
39	(4)

	op	arg1	arg2
(0)	-	c	
(1)	*	b	(0)
(2)	-	c	
(3)	*	b	(2)
(4)	+	(1)	(3)

Advantages of Intermediate code Generation:

→ Easier to Implement: Intermediate code generation can simplify the code generation process by reducing the complexity of the input code, making it easier to implement.

→ Platform Independence: Intermediate code is platform-independent meaning that it can be translated into machine code (or) byte code for any platform.

→ Code Reuse: Intermediate code can be reused in the future to generate code for other platforms (or) languages.

→ Easier Debugging: Intermediate code can be easier to debug than machine code (or) byte code, as it is closer to the original source code.

Disadvantages of Intermediate code Generation:

→ Increased compilation time: Intermediate code generation can significantly increase the compilation time, less suitable for real-time (or) time-critical applications.

→ Additional Memory usage: Intermediate code generation requires additional memory to store the intermediate representation.

→ Increased complexity: Intermediate code generation can increase the complexity of the compiler design, making it harder to implement and maintain.

→ Reduced Performance: The process of generating intermediate code can result in code that executes slower than code generated directly from the source code.

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